

Introduction

BCSE304L

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Methods of proof

- A **theorem** is a statement that can be shown to be true.
- A **proof** is to demonstrate that a theorem is true with a sequence of statements that form an argument.
- An **axiom** or postulate is the underlying assumption about mathematical structures, the hypothesis of the theorem to be proved, and previously proved theorems.
- The **rules of inference** are the means used to draw conclusion from other assertions which tie together the steps of a proof.
- A **lemma** is a simple theorem used in the proof of other theorems.
- A **corollary** is a proposition that can be established directly from a theorem that has been proved.
- A **conjecture** is a statement whose truth is unknown. When its proof is found, it becomes a theorem.

On Theorems, Lemmas and Corollaries

We typically refer to:

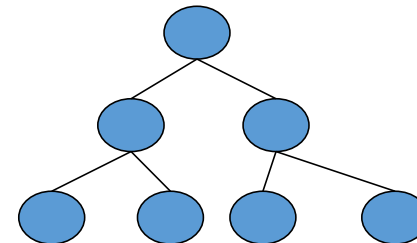
- A major result as a “**theorem**”
- An intermediate result that we show to prove a larger result as a “**lemma**”
- A result that follows from an already proven result as a “**corollary**”

An example:

Theorem: *The height of an n -node binary tree is at least $\text{floor}(\lg n)$*

Lemma: *Level i of a perfect binary tree has 2^i nodes.*

Corollary: *A perfect binary tree of height h has $2^{h+1}-1$ nodes.*



Deductive Proofs

From the given statement(s) to a conclusion statement (what we want to prove)

- Logical progression by direct implications

Example for parsing a statement:

- “If $y \geq 4$, then $2^y \geq y^2$.”

given

conclusion

(there are other ways of writing this).

Example: Deductive proof

Let Claim 1: If $y \geq 4$, then $2^y \geq y^2$.

Let x be any number which is obtained by adding the squares of 4 positive integers.

Claim 2:

Given x and assuming that Claim 1 is true, prove that $2^x \geq x^2$

• Proof:

1) Given: $x = a^2 + b^2 + c^2 + d^2$

2) Given: $a \geq 1, b \geq 1, c \geq 1, d \geq 1$

3) $\Rightarrow a^2 \geq 1, b^2 \geq 1, c^2 \geq 1, d^2 \geq 1$ (by 2)

4) $\Rightarrow x \geq 4$ (by 1 & 3)

5) $\Rightarrow 2^x \geq x^2$ (by 4 and Claim 1)

"implies" or "follows"



Quantifiers

“For all” or “For every”

- Universal proofs
- Notation=



“There exists”

- Used in existential proofs
- Notation=



Implication is denoted by $\Rightarrow$

- E.g., “IF A THEN B” can also be written as “ $A \Rightarrow B$ ”

Different ways of saying the same thing

- “If H then C ”:
 - i. H *implies* C
 - ii. $H \Rightarrow C$
 - iii. C *if* H
 - iv. H *only if* C
 - v. *Whenever* H *holds*, C *follows*

“If-and-Only-If” statements

- “A if and only if B” ($A \iff B$)
 - (if part) if B then A ($\implies$)
 - (only if part) A only if B ($\implies$)
(same as “if A then B”)
- “If and only if” is abbreviated as “iff”
 - i.e., “A iff B”
- Example:
 - Theorem: *Let x be a real number. Then floor of x = ceiling of x if and only if x is an integer.*
- Proofs for iff have two parts
 - One for the “if part” & another for the “only if part”

Rules of Inference

The rules of inference provide the justification of the steps used to show that a conclusion follows logically from a set of hypotheses.

- Basis of the rule of inference: the law of detachment

$$\begin{array}{ll} p & \text{hypotheses} \\ p \rightarrow q & \\ \hline \therefore q & \text{conclusion} \end{array}$$

It is the same as to say that $(p \wedge (p \rightarrow q)) \rightarrow q$ is a tautology.

Example 1

It is snowing today.

If it snows today, then we will go skiing.

We will go skiing.

Rules of Inference

Rules of Inference	Tautology	Name
$\frac{p}{\therefore p \vee q}$	$p \rightarrow (p \vee q)$	Addition
$\frac{p \wedge q}{\therefore p}$	$(p \wedge q) \rightarrow p$	Simplification
$\frac{p}{q}$ $\frac{q}{\therefore p \wedge q}$	$(p \wedge q) \rightarrow (p \wedge q)$	Conjunction
$\frac{p}{p \rightarrow q}$ $\frac{p \rightarrow q}{\therefore q}$	$(p \wedge (p \rightarrow q)) \rightarrow q$	Modus ponens (detachment law)
$\frac{\neg q}{p \rightarrow q}$ $\frac{p \rightarrow q}{\therefore \neg p}$	$(\neg q \wedge (p \rightarrow q)) \rightarrow \neg p$	Modus tollens
$\frac{p \rightarrow q}{q \rightarrow r}$ $\frac{q \rightarrow r}{\therefore p \rightarrow r}$	$((p \rightarrow q) \wedge (q \rightarrow r)) \rightarrow (p \rightarrow r)$	Hypothetical syllogism
$\frac{p \vee q}{\neg p}$ $\frac{\neg p}{\therefore q}$	$((p \vee q) \wedge \neg p) \rightarrow q$	Disjunctive syllogism

Example 2

If n is divisible by 3, then n^2 is divisible by 9.

n is divisible by 3.

$\therefore n^2$ is divisible by 9.

Example 3

State which rule of inference is the basis of the following argument : It is below freezing now. Therefore, it is either below freezing or raining now.

Solution

$$\frac{p}{\therefore p \vee q}$$

Example 4

State which rule of inference is the basis of the following argument : It is below freezing and raining now. Therefore, it is below freezing now.

Solution

$$\frac{p \wedge q}{\therefore p}$$

Example 5

State which rule of inference is the basis of the following argument : If it rains, then we will not have a barbecue today. If we do not have a barbecue today, then we will have a barbecue tomorrow. Therefore, if it rains today, we will have a barbecue tomorrow.

Solution

$$\begin{array}{l} p \rightarrow q \\ q \rightarrow r \\ \hline \therefore p \rightarrow r \end{array}$$

Example 6

Show the following hypotheses :

(1) It is not sunny this afternoon and it is colder than yesterday.

(2) We will go swimming only if it is sunny.

(3) If we do not go swimming, then we will take a canoe trip.

(4) If we take a canoe trip, then we will be home by sunset.

lead to the conclusion “We will be home by sunset”.

p: It is sunny this afternoon.

q

r

s

t

Step	Reason
1. $\neg p \wedge q$	Hypothesis
2. $\neg p$	Simplification(1)
3. $r \rightarrow p$	Hypothesis
4. $\neg r$	Modustollens(2,3)
5. $\neg r \rightarrow s$	Hypothesis
6. s	Modusponens(4,5)
7. $s \rightarrow t$	Hypothesis
8. t	Modusponens(6,7)

Example 7

Show that the hypotheses

(1) If ~~you send me an e-mail message~~^q,
then ~~I will finish writing the program~~^p,

(2) If you do not send me an e-mail
message, then ~~I will go to sleep early~~^r,

(3) If I go to sleep early, then ~~I will wake up~~^s
~~feeling refreshed~~

lead to the conclusion “If I do not finish
writing program, then I will wake up
feeling refreshed”.

Step	Reason
1. $p \rightarrow q$	Hypothesis
2. $\neg q \rightarrow \neg p$	Contraposition (1)
3. $\neg p \rightarrow r$	Hypothesis
4. $\neg q \rightarrow r$	Hypothetical syllogism (2,3)
5. $r \rightarrow s$	Hypothesis
6. $\neg q \rightarrow s$	Hypothetical syllogism(4,5)

An argument is called *valid* if whenever hypotheses are true, the conclusion is also true.

Consequently, q logically follows from the hypotheses $p_1, p_2, \dots, p_n$ is the same as showing that the implication $(p_1 \wedge p_2 \wedge \dots \wedge p_n) \rightarrow q$ is true.

Proving techniques

- By induction
 - (3 steps) Basis, inductive hypothesis, inductive step
- By contradiction
 - Start with the statement contradictory to the given statement
 - E.g., To prove $(A \Rightarrow B)$, we start with:
 - $(A \text{ and } \sim B)$
 - ... and then show that could never happen

What if you want to prove that “ $(A \text{ and } B \Rightarrow C \text{ or } D)$ ”?

- By contrapositive statement
 - If A then B $\equiv$ If $\sim B$ then $\sim A$

Proving techniques...

- By counter-example
 - Show an example that disproves the claim
- Note: There is no such thing called a “proof by example”!
 - So when asked to prove a claim, an example that satisfied that claim is not a proof

Induction

• If we have a propositional function $P(n)$, and we want to prove that $P(n)$ is true for any natural number n , we do the following:

- **Show that $P(0)$ is true.**
(basis step)
- **Show that if $P(n)$ then $P(n + 1)$ for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$.**
(inductive step)
- **Then $P(n)$ must be true for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$.**
(conclusion)

Induction

- **Example:** Show that $n < 2^n$ for all positive integers n .
- Let $P(n)$ be the proposition “ $n < 2^n$.”
- 1. Show that $P(1)$ is true.
(basis step)
- $P(1)$ is true, because $1 < 2^1 = 2$.

Induction

- 2. Show that if $P(n)$ is true, then $P(n + 1)$ is true. (inductive step)
- Assume that $n < 2^n$ is true.
- We need to show that $P(n + 1)$ is true, i.e.
- $n + 1 < 2^{n+1}$
- We start from $n < 2^n$:
- $n + 1 < 2^n + 1 \leq 2^n + 2^n = 2^{n+1}$
- Therefore, if $n < 2^n$ then $n + 1 < 2^{n+1}$

Induction

3. Then $P(n)$ must be true for any positive integer.
(conclusion)
- $n < 2^n$ is true for any positive integer.
 - End of proof.

Induction

- **Another Example (“Gauss”):** $1 + 2 + \dots + n = n(n + 1)/2$
 1. Show that $P(0)$ is true.
(basis step)
- For $n = 0$ we get $0 = 0$. True.

Induction

2. Show that if $P(n)$ then $P(n + 1)$ for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$.
(inductive step)

- $1 + 2 + \dots + n = n(n + 1)/2$
- $1 + 2 + \dots + n + (n + 1) = n(n + 1)/2 + (n + 1)$
- $= (2n + 2 + n(n + 1))/2$
- $= (2n + 2 + n^2 + n)/2$
- $= (2 + 3n + n^2)/2$
- $= (n + 1)(n + 2)/2$
- $= (n + 1)((n + 1) + 1)/2$

Induction

3. Then $P(n)$ must be true for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$. (conclusion)

- $1 + 2 + \dots + n = n(n + 1)/2$ is true for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$.
- End of proof.

Induction

- There is another proof technique that is very similar to the principle of mathematical induction.
- It is called **the second principle of mathematical induction**.
- It can be used to prove that a propositional function $P(n)$ is true for any natural number n .

Induction

- The second principle of mathematical induction:
- Show that $P(0)$ is true.
(basis step)
- Show that if $P(0)$ and $P(1)$ and ... and $P(n)$,
then $P(n + 1)$ for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$.
(inductive step)
- Then $P(n)$ must be true for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$.
(conclusion)

Induction

- Example: Show that every integer greater than 1 can be written as the product of primes.
- Show that $P(2)$ is true.
(basis step)
- 2 is the product of one prime: itself.

Induction

- Show that if $P(2)$ and $P(3)$ and ... and $P(n)$, then $P(n + 1)$ for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$. (inductive step)
- Two possible cases:
- If $(n + 1)$ is **prime**, then obviously $P(n + 1)$ is true.
- If $(n + 1)$ is **composite**, it can be written as the product of two integers a and b such that $2 \leq a \leq b < n + 1$.
- By the **induction hypothesis**, both a and b can be written as the product of primes.
- Therefore, $n + 1 = a \cdot b$ can be written as the product of primes.

Induction

- Then $P(n)$ must be true for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$.
(conclusion)
- End of proof.
- We have shown that **every integer greater than 1** can be written as the product of primes.

Why does Mathematical induction work?

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
 P(1) & & P(2) & & P(3) & & P(k-1) \\
 \frac{P(1) \rightarrow P(2)}{\therefore P(2)} & & \frac{P(2) \rightarrow P(3)}{\therefore P(3)} & & \frac{P(3) \rightarrow P(4)}{\therefore P(4)} & \dots\dots\dots & \frac{P(k-1) \rightarrow P(k)}{\therefore P(k)} \\
 P(1) & & & & & &
 \end{array}$$

$ \begin{array}{c} p \\ p \rightarrow q \\ \hline \therefore q \\ \text{Law of detachment} \end{array} $
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Example 1

Use mathematical induction to prove that the ~~sum~~ ^{$P(n)$} of the first n odd positive integers is n^2 .

Basis step : We prove $P(1)$ is true. $1 = 1^2$. Therefore, $P(1)$ is true.

Inductive step : Assuming $P(k)$ is true, we prove $P(k + 1)$ is true.

$$1 + 3 + 5 + \dots + (2k - 1) + (2k + 1)$$

$$= k^2 + (2k + 1) = (k + 1)^2$$

Therefore, for any k if $P(k)$ is true then $P(k + 1)$ is true.

Example 2

Use Mathematical induction to prove the inequality
 $n < 2^n$ for all positive integers n .

Basis step : $P(1)$ is true, since $1 < 2^1$.

Inductive step : Assume $P(k)$ is true, that is, $k < 2^k$. We need to show that $P(k+1)$ is true.

From $k+1 < 2^k + 1 \leq 2^k + 2^k = 2^{k+1}$, we get that $P(k+1)$ is true.

Mathematical induction is used to prove the form $\forall n P(n)$ is true.
Where the universe of discourse is the set of contiguous integers: $m, m+1, m+2, \dots$

1. Basis step. The proposition $P(m)$ is shown to be true.
2. Inductive step. The implication

$P(k) \rightarrow P(k+1)$ is shown to be true for every positive integer $k \geq m$.

Example 3

Use Mathematical induction to prove that

$1 + 2 + 2^2 + 2^3 + \dots + 2^k = 2^{k+1} - 1$ for all nonnegative integers k .

Basis step: $P(0)$ is true since $2^0 = 1 = 2^1 - 1$.

Inductive step: Assuming $P(k)$ is true, we prove $P(k+1)$ is true:

$$\begin{aligned} & 1 + 2 + 2^2 + 2^3 + \dots + 2^k + 2^{k+1} \\ &= (1 + 2 + 2^2 + 2^3 + \dots + 2^k) + 2^{k+1} \\ &= (2^{k+1} - 1) + 2^{k+1} = 2 \cdot 2^{k+1} - 1 = 2^{k+2} - 1. \end{aligned}$$

Example 4 Sums of Geometric Progressions

Use Mathematical induction to prove the following formula:

$$\sum_{j=0}^n ar^j = a + ar + ar^2 + \cdots ar^n = \frac{ar^{n+1} - a}{r - 1}, \text{ when } r \neq 1. \quad \text{P(n)}$$

Basis step: $P(0)$ is true, since $a = \frac{ar - a}{r - 1}$

Inductive step: Assume $P(k)$ is true. We prove $P(k+1)$ is true:

$$\begin{aligned} & a + ar + ar^2 + \cdots ar^k + ar^{k+1} \\ &= (a + ar + ar^2 + \cdots ar^k) + ar^{k+1} = \frac{ar^{k+1} - a}{r - 1} + ar^{k+1} = \frac{ar^{k+2} - a}{r - 1} \end{aligned}$$

Example 5 Inequality for Harmonic Numbers.

(Harmonic numbers : $H_i = 1 + \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{3} + \cdots + \frac{1}{i}$, for $i = 1, 2, 3, \dots$)

Use Mathematical induction to prove that

$$\underline{H_{2^n} \geq 1 + n/2.} \quad P(n)$$

Basis step : $P(0)$ is true, since $H_{2^0} = H_1 = 1 \geq 1 + 0/2$.

Inductive step : Assume $P(k)$ is true. We prove $P(k+1)$ is true :

$$\begin{aligned} H_{2^{k+1}} &= 1 + \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{3} + \cdots + \frac{1}{2^k} + \frac{1}{2^k+1} + \cdots + \frac{1}{2^{k+1}} \\ &= H_{2^k} + \frac{1}{2^k+1} + \cdots + \frac{1}{2^{k+1}} \\ &\geq \left(1 + \frac{k}{2}\right) + \frac{1}{2^k+1} + \cdots + \frac{1}{2^{k+1}} \text{ (by the inductive hypothesis)} \\ &\geq \left(1 + \frac{k}{2}\right) + 2^k \cdot \frac{1}{2^{k+1}} \text{ (since there are terms each not less than } 1/2^{k+1}) \\ &\geq \left(1 + \frac{k}{2}\right) + \frac{1}{2} = 1 + \frac{k+1}{2}. \end{aligned}$$

Example 6 The numbers of Subsets of a Finite Set

Use Mathematical induction to prove that

If S is a finite set with n elements, then S has 2^n subsets. $P(n)$

Basis step : $P(0)$ is true, since the empty set has exactly

$2^0 = 1$ subsets, namely, itself.

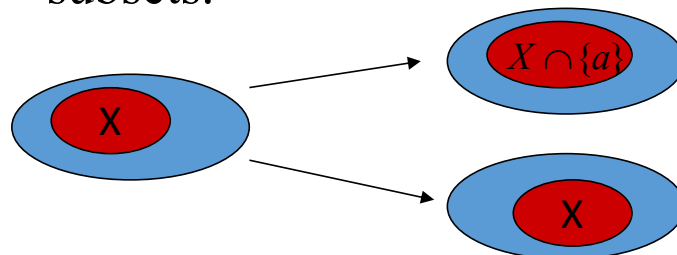
Inductive step : Assume $P(k)$ is true. We prove that $P(k+1)$ is true :

Let a be one element of S and $S' = S - \{a\}$.

The subsets of S can be obtained in the following way :

For each subset X of S' , X and $X \cup \{a\}$ are the subsets of S .

Since there are 2^k subsets of S' , therefore S has $2 \cdot 2^k = 2^{k+1}$ subsets.



Form of Proof by Contraposition

- Theorem: $p \rightarrow q$.
- This is logically equivalent to $\sim q \rightarrow \sim p$.
- Outline of the proof of the theorem:
 - Assume $\sim q$.
 - Prove $\sim p$.
 - Conclude that $p \rightarrow q$.
- This is a *direct* proof of the contrapositive.

Benefit of Proof by Contraposition

- If p and q are negative statements, then $\sim p$ and $\sim q$ are positive statements.
- We may be able to give a *direct* proof that $\sim q \rightarrow \sim p$ more easily than we could give a direct proof that $p \rightarrow q$.

Example: Proof by Contraposition

- Theorem: The sum of a rational and an irrational is irrational.
- Restate the theorem: Let r be a rational number and let α be a number. If α is irrational, then $r + \alpha$ is irrational.
- Restate again: Let r be a rational number and let α be a number. If $r + \alpha$ is rational, then α is rational.

The Proof

- Proof:
 - Let r be rational and α be a number.
 - Suppose that $r + \alpha$ is rational.
 - Let $s = r + \alpha$. Then $\alpha = s - r$, which is rational.
 - Therefore, if $r + \alpha$ is rational, then α is rational.
 - It follows that if α is irrational, then $r + \alpha$ is irrational.

Example

To prove

If $3n + 2$ is odd, then n is also odd.

we can prove the equivalent statement in
contrapositive form:

or

If n is **not** odd, then $3n + 2$ is **not** odd.

If n is **even**, then $3n + 2$ is **even**.

Rationale

Why?

If $3n + 2$ is odd, then n is also odd.

If n is **not** odd, then $3n + 2$ is **not** odd.

|

Recall: Negation

Statement: n is odd

Negation of the statement: n is **not** odd

Or: n is even

Recall: Negation

Notations

$P: n \text{ is odd}$ $\sim P: n \text{ is not odd}$

Contrapositive

The **contrapositive form** of

is

If P then Q

If $\sim Q$ then $\sim P$

Example 4

If $3n + 2$ is odd, then n is also odd.

Analysis

Proof: We prove the contrapositive:

If n is even, then $3n + 2$ is even.

Contrapositive

If $3n + 2$ is odd, then n is also odd.

Analysis

Proof by Contrapositive of If-then Theorem

- Restate the statement in its equivalent contrapositive form.
- Use direct proof on the contrapositive form.
- State the origin statement as the conclusion.

Contraposition and Compound Hypotheses

- Often a theorem has the form

$$(p \wedge q) \rightarrow r.$$

- This is logically equivalent to

$$\sim r \rightarrow \sim(p \wedge q).$$

- However, it is also equivalent to

$$p \rightarrow (q \rightarrow r).$$

so it is also equivalent to

$$p \rightarrow (\sim r \rightarrow \sim q).$$

Form of Proof by Contradiction

- Theorem: $p \rightarrow q$.
- Outline of the proof of the theorem :
 - Assume $\sim(p \rightarrow q)$.
 - This is equivalent to assuming $p \wedge \sim q$.
 - Derive a contradiction, i.e., conclude $r \wedge \sim r$ for some statement r .
 - Conclude that $p \rightarrow q$.

Benefit of Proof by Contradiction

- The statement r may be *any statement whatsoever* because any contradiction

$$r \wedge \sim r$$

will suffice.

Proof By Contradiction Skeleton

- Suppose, for the sake of contradiction $\neg p$
- ...
- q
- ...
- $\neg q$
- But q and $\neg q$ is a contradiction! So we must have p .

Proof By Contradiction

- Claim: $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational (i.e. not rational).
- Proof:

Proof By Contradiction

- Claim: $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational (i.e. not rational).
- Proof:
- Suppose for the sake of contradiction that $\sqrt{2}$ is rational.

We don't have a fixed
target.
That can make this
proof harder.

- But [] is a contradiction!

Proof By Contradiction

If a^2 is even then a is even

- Claim: $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational (i.e. not rational).
- Proof:
- Suppose for the sake of contradiction that $\sqrt{2}$ is rational.
- By definition of rational, there are integers s, t such that $t \neq 0$ and $\sqrt{2} = s/t$
- Let $p = \frac{s}{\gcd(s,t)}$, $q = \frac{t}{\gcd(s,t)}$ By the fundamental theorem of arithmetic, we have divided out all common factors of s, t and so p, q have no more common prime factors. Therefore the $\gcd(p, q) = 1$
- $\sqrt{2} = \frac{p}{q}$
- That's a contradiction! We conclude $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational.

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- Claim: $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational (i.e. not rational).
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- $\sqrt{2} = \frac{p}{q}$
- $2 = \frac{p^2}{q^2}$
- $2q^2 = p^2$ so p^2 is even.
- That's a contradiction! We conclude $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational.

Proof By Contradiction

If a^2 is even then a is even

- Claim: $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational (i.e. not rational).
- Proof:
- Suppose for the sake of contradiction that $\sqrt{2}$ is rational.
- By definition of rational, there are integers s, t such that $t \neq 0$ and $\sqrt{2} = s/t$
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- $\sqrt{2} = \frac{p}{q}$
- $2 = \frac{p^2}{q^2}$
- $2q^2 = \frac{p^2}{q^2} \cdot q^2 = p^2$ so p^2 is even. By the fact above, p is even, i.e. $p = 2k$ for some integer k . Squaring both sides gives $p^2 = 4k^2$
- Substituting into our original equation, we have: $2q^2 = 4k^2$, i.e. $q^2 = 2k^2$.
- So q^2 is even. Applying the fact above again, q is even.
- But if both p and q are even, $\gcd(p, q) \geq 2$. But we said $\gcd(p, q) = 1$
- That's a contradiction! We conclude $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational.

Proof By Contradiction

- How in the world did we know how to do that?
- In real life...lots of attempts that didn't work.
- Be very careful with proof by contradiction – without a clear target, you can easily end up in a loop of trying random things and getting nowhere.

Another Proof By Contradiction

- Claim: There are infinitely many primes.
- Proof:

Another Proof By Contradiction

- Claim: There are infinitely many primes.
- Proof:
- Suppose for the sake of contradiction, that there are only finitely many primes. Call them $p_1, p_2, \dots, p_k$.
- But [] is a contradiction! So there must be infinitely many primes.

Another Proof By Contradiction

- Claim: There are infinitely many primes.
- Proof:
- Suppose for the sake of contradiction, that there are only finitely many primes. Call them $p_1, p_2, \dots, p_k$.
- Consider the number $q = p_1 \cdot p_2 \cdot \dots \cdot p_k + 1$
- Case 1: q is prime
- Case 2: q is composite
- But [] is a contradiction! So there must be infinitely many primes.

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- Proof:
- Suppose for the sake of contradiction, that there are only finitely many primes. Call them $p_1, p_2, \dots, p_k$.
- Consider the number $q = p_1 \cdot p_2 \cdot \dots \cdot p_k + 1$
- Case 1: q is prime
- $q > p_i$ for all i . But every prime was supposed to be on the list $p_1, \dots, p_k$. A contradiction!
- Case 2: q is composite
- Some prime on the list (say p_i) divides q . So $q \% p_i = 0$. and $(p_1 p_2 \dots p_k + 1) \% p_i = 1$. But $q = (p_1 p_2 \dots p_k + 1)$. That's a contradiction!
- In either case we have a contradiction! So there must be infinitely many primes.

Just the Skeleton

- “For all integers x , if x^2 is even, then x is even.”

Just the Skeleton

- “For all integers x , if x^2 is even, then x is even.”
- Suppose for the sake of contradiction, there is an integer x , such that x^2 is even and x is odd.
- ...
- [] is a contradiction, so for all integers x , if x^2 is even, then x is even.

Just the Skeleton

- “There is not an integer k such that for all integers n , $k \geq n$.”

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- “There is not an integer k such that for all integers n , $k \geq n$.
- Suppose, for the sake of contradiction, that there is an integer k such that for all integers n , $k \geq n$.
- ...
- [] is a contradiction! So there is not an integer k such that for all integers n , $k \geq n$.

Contradiction vs. Contraposition

- Would this be a proof by contradiction or proof by contraposition?
- Proof by contraposition is preferred.

Contradiction vs. Contraposition?

- Theorem: Prove that if x is irrational, then $-x$ is also irrational.
- Proof:
 - Suppose that x is irrational and that $-x$ is rational.
 - Let $-x = a/b$, where a and b are integers.
 - Then $x = -(a/b) = (-a)/b$, which is rational.
 - This is a contradiction.
 - Therefore, if x is irrational, then $-x$ is also irrational.

What's the difference?

- What's the difference between proof by contrapositive and proof by contradiction?

Show $p \rightarrow q$	Proof by contradiction	Proof by contrap
Starting Point	$\neg(p \rightarrow q) \equiv (p \wedge \neg q)$	$\neg q$
Target	Something false	$\neg p$

Show p	Proof by contradiction	Proof by contrap
Starting Point	$\neg p$	---
Target	Something false	---

Counterexamples

- To disprove

$$\forall x P(x)$$

we simply need to find one number x in the domain of discourse that makes false.

- Such a value of x is called a counterexample

$$P(x)$$

Example 3

$\forall n \in \mathbb{N}, 2^n + 1 \text{ is prime}$
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Analysis

The statement is false

Example 4

If $3n + 2$ is odd, then n is also odd.